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STUDIES IN MARDUK ¹

By W. G. LAMBERT

For the history of religions the rise of Marduk, city god of Babylon, is one of the most striking phenomena known from ancient Mesopotamia. From being an utterly insignificant god in third-millennium Sumer, he had risen to be head of the Babylonian pantheon by the first millennium. The Münster thesis of Walter Sommerfeld, written under W. von Soden, is the first book-length treatment of this topic. As the subtitle indicates, it is largely restricted to the second millennium, the significant period because the rise took place within it. In fact third millennium evidence is dealt with briefly, but the first millennium is omitted. This is unfortunate because most of the religious literature dealing with Marduk is known from first-millennium copies only, though much of it was presumably composed during the second. In view of this uncertainty most of the religious texts about Marduk cannot be used within precise chronological frameworks.

Like all thesis writers, the author had to contend with the problem of building up expertise in certain areas while taking account of other areas of knowledge for which there was inadequate time. It must be strongly emphasized from the start that judged as a thesis this book deserves every commendation for the mature way in which the manifold problems of the theme have been tackled, and for the important collection of material which has been digested and presented. It is unnecessary to say that this is not an exhaustive study of the god Marduk. The author himself states on p. 5 that his work is to be considered 'eine Vorarbeit für eine umfassende Marduk-Monographie'.

This work was not written for historians of religions who lack knowledge of Sumerian and Akkadian. Though some chapters and sections do end with a statement of results, there is nowhere any general summing-up of conclusions, so it is appropriate to offer them here. They are that Marduk rose from obscurity to be a 'great god' (among other great gods) when Hammurabi made Babylon the political capital of Sumer and Akkad in the eighteenth century B.C., and that Marduk was officially acknowledged as supreme god in the pantheon under Nebuchadnezzar I in the later twelfth century B.C., though there had been unofficial rumblings to this effect earlier. These conclusions are not new, though they are not widely known. The reviewer offered precisely these conclusions in an article in 1964,² though without full documentation. And in 1911 Aage Schmidt,³ basing himself on the same kind of evidence, that is, dated material in royal inscriptions, concluded that Marduk replaced Enlil as head of the pantheon c. 1200 B.C. Though one can no longer accept all Schmidt's arguments and positions, it is remarkable how well his conclusion has stood the test of time. So while Sommerfeld makes (and can make) no special claims for his results, this work is extremely important as fully documenting for the first time the rise of Marduk to supremacy in the Babylonian pantheon under Nebuchadnezzar I.

¹ A review article on Walter Sommerfeld: *Der Aufstieg Marduks. Die Stellung Marduks in der babylonischen Religion des zweiten Jahrtausends v. Chr.* (Alter Orient und Altes Testament, Bd. 213) viii, 245 pp. Kevelaer: Butzon und Bercker, Neukirchen-Vluyn: Neukirchener Verlag, 1982. DM 97.

² W. S. McCullough (ed.), *The seed of wisdom. Essays in honour of T. J. Meek*, 3-13.

³ Aage Schmidt, *Gedanken über die Entwicklung der Religion auf Grund der babylonischen Quellen* (MVAAG, xvi/3) 69-71.

In substance there are five disparate parts: (i) a study of the name of Marduk (6 pp.); (ii) a consideration of the relationship of Marduk to Asalluḫi, son of Enki/Ea, by identification with whom Marduk was integrated in the pantheon (6 pp.); and studies of the evidence for Marduk in (iii) the third millennium (3 pp.), (iv) the Old Babylonian period (126 pp.), and (v) the Middle Babylonian period (63 pp.) treating separately the Cassite dynasty, the Second Isin dynasty, the Second Sea-land dynasty and surrounding areas under Babylonian influence.

Thus the greatest attention is given to the Old Babylonian period, and the most original results are to be found in this section of the book. In particular the author has made an exhaustive study of the administrative and economic documents of this period, attempting to assign all to archives so that their evidence can be used by town and reign. However, since the subject is Marduk and not Old Babylonian archives, the author only occasionally gives the reasons for his archival groupings. Other scholars are working on the same problems and at the present moment it may be said that while there is often agreement on these matters, there is also sometimes disagreement. Eventually demonstrations must be offered by full study of each archive, based primarily on the main subject matter of the documents, less on the incidental religious information. One hopes that the author's results will not be seriously affected by future studies on these lines. Though there is occasional material in these archives directly bearing on the official cults, it is mostly personal names that bear on the subject. These are fascinating because they reflect private religion in contrast to government-supported city cults. Thus on an official level throughout the Old Babylonian period Anu and Enlil, sometimes joined by Ea and the Mother Goddess, are the heads of the pantheon. But a quite common type of Old Babylonian personal name declares that one named god is 'lord/king/Enlil/god/foremost of the gods', and the gods so proclaimed are: Anu, Enlil, Ea, Šin, Šamaš, Adad and Zababa.⁴ Of these Šin seems to occur most commonly. There was certainly nothing heretical in this diversity, since these names were in ordinary use. It is of course very difficult to imagine what the bearers of these names thought about them. If they took them seriously at face value, then they must have been quite tolerant of the contradictory opinions of others. It is quite possible that the bearers of these names understood them as expressions of a pious wish rather than as firm statements of claimed fact. They were certainly not expressed with the exclusiveness of the Muslim cry, 'There is no god but Allah!' The important thing is that so far not a single example of such a name predicated of Marduk has turned up in the vast number of surviving Old Babylonian personal names. However, the author does show, by a most careful handling of the evidence, that judged by frequency of occurrence in personal names, Marduk was more popular in some parts of this period than was previously suspected.

After the full and meticulous handling of the Old Babylonian evidence, the Middle Babylonian is less thoroughly treated. In royal inscriptions and other

⁴ The author's material on pp. 72 f. lacks the names ^ašamaš-a-ša-re-ed-i-lī (*CT* 4, 46 b 17) 'Šamaš is the foremost of the gods', ^uutu.^een.lil.lā (*M. Čiğ, H. Kızılyay and F. R. Kraus, Altbabylonische Rechtsurkunden aus Nippur* 35 rev. 6 and 69 obv. 6, *BE* vi/2, 137 b) 'Utu is Enlil', and ^ana-bi-um-šar-i-lī (*YOS*, 13, 304, 14) 'Nabû is king of the gods' (the copy does not quite agree with the copyist's interpretation of this last name, but it is difficult to see what else it might be). Also a check of *YOS* 12 and 13 revealed that the documentation of these names, which is clearly meant to be exhaustive, is not. A few of the occurrences in *YOS* 12 are lacking, and most in *YOS* 13.

expressions of officialdom the ranking of the heads of the pantheon did not change throughout the Cassite period. But the author is at pains to seek out any hint that Marduk's star was on the rise. Thus on p. 159 he points out that the personal name 'Marduk is king of the gods' appears in documents from the reign of Kudur-Enlil. In a totally different context on p. 150 he notes the occurrence of 'Nabû is lord of the gods' and 'Nabû is king of the gods', but nowhere are the following Cassite-period names noted: 'Ea is king/lord of the gods', 'Sin is lord of the gods', 'Adad is king of the gods', 'Ninurta is head of the gods', and 'Niraḥ is king of the gods'.⁵ Amid such a variety the claim for Marduk looks less serious. But at least the idea is there, while it was lacking previously. A further proof that the idea of Marduk's supremacy was around in the Cassite period is the occurrence in personal names of 'The Lord' (^dEN). Though it seems never to be written phonetically, one may reasonably read back from later times the endingless Bēl as a divine name, and there is no reason for taking it to refer to any god other than Marduk. But personal names have qualified value, as already explained.

The other evidence for Marduk and his seniority among the gods in the Cassite period is more complex, and here the author's judgement is more frequently questionable even when based on all known facts. The best Cassite-period evidence for the ranking of the gods is contained in the curses on boundary stones. Occasionally local loyalties dictated particular variations in the ordering of the gods invoked, but otherwise there is a ranking by importance, which is always given in the sequence, and is sometimes made more explicit by epithets accompanying the divine names. The author introduces this material with the assertion: 'Es kann kein Zweifel daran bestehen, dass Marduk auch in der Kassitenzeit zu den bedeutendsten Götter gehörte' (p. 168). This important evidence is then summed up in two short sentences, of which the second states what is easily apparent to any one who studies the material, that there is a top-ranking group, Anu, Enlil and Ea (sometimes joined by the mother goddess), and a second-ranking group embracing Sin, Šamaš, Adad, and occasionally Ištar, to which group Marduk belonged. Thus Marduk was a second-ranking god in the Cassite period according to this official material.

The big god list An = Anum has the strongest claim to present Marduk as head of the pantheon before Nebuchadnezzar I. Since it deals systematically with, in principle, all the gods, its evidence cannot be dismissed as hyperbole. In two cases alone the number of names of a god agrees with the deity's mystical number: 40 for Ea, 50 for, not Enlil, but Marduk. In the traditional scheme Anu was 60, Enlil 50, Ea 40. Thus by giving Marduk 50 names the compiler of An = Anum was asserting that Marduk had taken over Enlil's powers and position. The author unwisely calls An = Anum 'der mittelassyrischen Götterliste' on p. 160 (incidentally [^dm]es is probably to be restored in it, as the 37th name of Marduk) but on p. 175 f. it is acknowledged to be a Middle Babylonian list. Its precise dating is difficult. A piece of Tablet I from Bogazköy, so c. 1300 B.C. (see p. 176, n. 1), seems to be the earliest fragment. Then there is a small fragment from Nippur, *SLT* 121, which Kramer and Civil judged to be 'certainly no earlier than Cassite, and in all probability Cassite'. Next there are two Middle Assyrian copies of Kidin-Sin, c. 1120–1090 B.C. This famous scribe must have been a contemporary of Nebuchadnezzar I of Babylon,

⁵ The passages for the names: Adad-šar(ri)-ili, Ea-bēl/šar-ili, Sin-bēl-ili, Šar-ili-Sin, Ninurta-rēš-ili, and Niraḥ(^dmuš)-šar-ili are listed in the name lists of A. T. Clay, *PN*; *TMH*, N.F., v and *UET* VII.

so, since his copies are expressly given as based on 'old' originals, obviously the creation of An = Anum antedates the reign of Nebuchadnezzar I. The Nippur fragment is less certain. By 'Cassite' Kramer and Civil presumably meant 'Middle Babylonian', because no one can distinguish between Cassite and II Isin library hands. The piece from Bogazköy is unfortunate to come from Tablet I, while the sections of Ea and Marduk are from Tablet II. The list as a whole goes back to a much shorter single-column Old Babylonian list, which developed into a double-column version already in the Old Babylonian period. Nothing in the final form of Tablet I, which deals with Anu and Enlil, requires a date of compilation later than the early Cassite period. Since the order of the list: Anu-Enlil-Mother Goddess-Ea, etc., etc., presumes Enlil's original supremacy and only the sub-section of Marduk within Ea's section presumes the contrary, it is entirely possible that Marduk's 50 names in An = Anum are one of the latest developments within the tradition. Thus one cannot use the existence of a copy of Tablet I at Bogazköy to prove that Tablet II of the same edition was identical with Tablet II as first known to us from the copies of Kidin-Sîn. They attest the existence of Marduk's 50 names at least a little while before the reign of Nebuchadnezzar I, but not necessarily much. 'Old' is a relative term, and need not imply more than a few generations, though it could mean a much longer period.

The Babylonian Epic of Creation, *Enūma Eliš*, holds a major place in the author's reasoning because he accepts W. von Soden's Cassite dating of it, without closer specification of its origin within that lengthy dynasty. In contrast with An = Anum, which was a scholarly work and even so discreetly asserts Marduk's supremacy only indirectly in one short section, *Enūma Eliš* from beginning to end exists solely to assert Marduk's headship of the pantheon, and in the Epilogue, which there is no reason to consider a later addition, urges that it should be used for general instruction of the whole populace. Thus, if von Soden's dating is correct, this new 'Marduk theology' was being shouted from the rooftops already under the Cassite kings. The present writer prefers the view that *Enūma Eliš* was a product of the very campaign that resulted in the official promotion of Marduk in the reign of Nebuchadnezzar I, perhaps composed during that very reign as a theological justification of the change.

The new arguments that the author brings seem to the present writer neither cogent nor particularly well-informed. On p. 176, because of the similarity between the 50 names in *Enūma Eliš* and those in An = Anum, it is suggested that the author of the former knew the latter, which would then require a Cassite origin for *Enūma Eliš*. However, though the total is the same, only some four-fifths of the actual names agree, which limited agreement is surely better explained on the view that neither is directly dependent on the other while both derive from a common tradition. And in fact the list in *Enūma Eliš* with most of the accompanying epithets is incorporated in toto (with a little rearrangement at the beginning) from a triple-column god list, of which fragments have long been available: *CT* 25, 46-7, K 7658 + 8222; *STC* 1, 165-6, K 8519 and K 13337. So we are dealing with two god lists, neither of which is demonstrably based on the other. Then, in considering the position of Enlil in *Enūma Eliš*, it is noted that the name 'en-kur-kur', given by Enlil to Marduk at the very end, is 'sehr verwandt' to Enlil's own title ^dlugal-kur-kur-ra (p. 175, n. 3). But there is no name Enkurkur, only Bēl-mātāti (note the writing *be-el-KUR.KUR* in *CT* 13, 27, 136), which is the normal and literal translation of the Sumerian Lugalkurkurra (cf. p. 166), so here Enlil abdicates quite explicitly by assigning one of his most honorific names to

Marduk: *nomen est persona*. In this light the author's argument that the frequent and conspicuous lack of Enlil in this epic was occasioned by a desire to avoid controversy (p. 175, n. 3) cannot be sustained. Enlil is lacking where his presence might detract from Marduk's glory. So in the theogony at the beginning of Tablet I Enlil should appear, as he does in the almost identical theogony in Eudemos of Rhodes, but such an appearance would have shown his seniority over Marduk. So he is ignored until Marduk has killed Tīāmat, obtained supreme power thereby, and reorganized the universe to his plans. At this point Enlil appears for the first time: to have his place in the universe assigned to him by Marduk! This is not avoidance of controversy but downright spiteful treatment of the old head of the pantheon. And the same treatment is meted out to Enlil to the very end. He only appears where he can contribute to Marduk's greater glory.

How far such debunking of Enlil is conceivable before Marduk's supremacy was officially acknowledged can be a matter of opinion alone. The author advances the view (p. 174) that the Cassite kings were constrained by their position as responsible for many cities and their cults to take a neutral view, while the priesthood of Marduk in Babylon was free to promote new ideas. Certainly Esagil was not just the royal chapel, and its priesthood could challenge the king, as happened later with Nabonidus. But at the same time these kings were kings of Babylon in their titular, and Babylon was a town, not a country, having therefore a special relationship to the king. As patron god of the town Marduk therefore was, politically, the king's god, as is clear from the time of Hammurabi and onwards. The king celebrated the major festivals in Babylon, not in Uruk, Nippur or Eridu. Thus the priesthood of Babylon was part of the body politic of the times, not an independent institution without ties to the king. Thus it seems unlikely to the present writer that the priesthood of Marduk would be spreading a new theology that was offensive to the priesthoods of other towns of the realm against the king's wishes, unless the king at the time were weak or indifferent, and the latter seems unlikely without the former. So while one is free to speculate about such an issue, no positive results can be found on present evidence. However, there is another aspect of the problem, altogether neglected by the author, where a more positive conclusion can be drawn, that is the cosmology of the city Babylon. Enlil's old headship of the gods was tied in with his city, Nippur, because once a year the major gods assembled there under his chairmanship to take important decisions. Tablet V of *Enūma Eliš* describes how Babylon was created as the first city, to which the other members of the pantheon would come to participate in the assembly under Marduk. This is replacing Nippur with Babylon, and it is well known that in the first millennium the gods of the other cities (presumably their statues in fact) did make the journey to Babylon to participate in the New Year's festival, when 'destinies were decreed' and Marduk was reappointed head of the pantheon. Opinions about the headship of the pantheon could be diverse yet tolerant, as we noticed in the case of assertions of this kind in personal names. It was all in the mind, and city cults could continue irrespective. But it was quite another thing to assert that the city Babylon was built in the beginning to serve as a meeting place for the gods if this had never happened and seemed to have no likelihood of happening in the near future. The hard facts in this case would make such an assertion ridiculous. This factor favours the view that *Enūma Eliš* was composed when official support for Marduk's final promotion had been gained.

The linguistic evidence offered for the date of composition of *Enūma Eliš*

(p. 175, n. 2) repeats well-known arguments about the ending *-iš*,⁶ using modern German equivalents to decide whether in particular cases it is a 'Vergleichskasus' or not. Since the language in question is a poetic and literary idiom, not a spoken dialect, this evidence is inadequate to bear the burden of proof put on it.

Further evidence for the religious tone of the Cassite period is taken from seal inscriptions (p. 157), about a third of which are addressed to Marduk as compared with other gods. This the author interprets as a sign that Marduk was a popular god to whom people turned with their personal problems. But information not given raises some doubt about this. The total of Cassite-period seals recovered is quite small compared with those from the Old Babylonian period, though they were of about equal duration. The difference is partly explained by the deep decline of the country for roughly the first half of the Cassite dynasty. However, that is not the whole explanation, since the total of Cassite-period seals is much less than half that of the Old Babylonian period. A hint is given in that, though fewer, they are generally bigger. The Old Babylonian period was one of both state and private capitalism when socially quite lowly people might be entering into contracts for which seals would be needed. The Cassite period was less burgeoning economically and more feudal so that seal ownership was more limited. There is good reason for thinking that many Cassite seals belonged to government officials, like the early drilled-style Neo-Assyrian. A surprisingly large number of seals declare in the inscriptions that they were owned by servants of Kurigalzu, while the rarity or total lack of other well known kings' names from seal inscriptions suggests that many of the seals in question were likewise those of royal officials, but under kings who did not insist on officials naming their royal master in their seal inscriptions. Servants of these kings of Babylon may have been constrained by professional considerations to prefer Marduk as a personal god, and many of them may have originated from families of the town Babylon.

The author nowhere discusses the various known and possible reasons for choice of 'the personal god', or gods to whom people addressed themselves for particular individual purposes. Marduk's 'Menschenfreundlichkeit' (p. 125) is based on the phrase 'Marduk who loves you' in Old Babylonian letters, and is buttressed by an appeal to Ludlul bēl nēmeqi, the poem of the righteous sufferer. This appeal lacks sophistication. In this poem Marduk makes his most devoted servant, against whom there is no known complaint, suffer loss of wealth, position, family, friends and health, eventually to be restored to his former state and position. The pious tone of the work precluded blatant accusations of injustice against Marduk, but his responsibility for what happened is made abundantly clear. A strange way to love mankind, surely! Marduk's name Meršakušu (En. El. vi, 137) 'Savage, (yet) relenting' sums up the lesson of the whole poem. The ancients no doubt stressed Marduk's mercy to induce him to be less savage.

The six pages devoted to the pronunciation and etymology of the name Marduk (7–12) give a fair quantity of material but offer controversial conclusions. The earliest evidence, Old Babylonian, supports the pronunciation Marūtuk or Marūtu, but, starting in the middle periods, a shorter form Marduk or Martuk seems to be attested. However, the LXX and Masoretic Hebrew regularly support the longer form: *Marōdakh* and *Me'rōdāk* (vowels not based

⁶ Also the Old Babylonian occurrence of a comparative *-iš* in *etlum ru-i-iš ana ilišu ibakki* (RB 59, pl. vii 1) 'A man weeps to his god like a friend' is ignored, though attention has been drawn to it before (Or. 40, 97).

on *bōšet*, which would yield Mārōdek), as do the majority of the Greek transliterations, which the author has not used. Also the late Assyrian and Babylonian texts for which the precise form of the name was important, that is (pseudo)-etymologies (not studied by the author) and an acrostic employing the name, regularly use the long form. In fact the supposed short form is open to doubt. The author does not quote, nor does the present writer know, any phonetic writing ^dma-ar-, but only ^dmar-. The end of the second millennium and the early part of the first millennium witnessed a big growth in the use of signs for C-V-C-V, such as *bala* (from *bal*) developed for use in the verb *nabalkutu*, and *tara* (from *tar*) for *tara-kás*, also *taru/tari* from GI and *aru* from PA. The best argument for the shorter form is that it arose through contamination with the personal name Marduku/Martuku, which first appears in the middle periods. But the Hebrews carefully distinguish the personal name Mordecai from the divine name and it is hard to understand how this could have happened unless the native users of the names, the Babylonians, also distinguished them in the late period. The occasional Greek transliterations with the short form for the divine name, from the 'Canon of Ptolemy', are hard to assess because the names are often scribally corrupted and came through a very long and devious tradition in Greek MSS.⁷

No such doubts attach to the longer form, which, being also the older attested form, must be used for etymology. The author cites the possible derivation amar + utu + (a)k, but raises objections to it and reaches no conclusion. The first objection is that in second-millennium texts the genitive element is neglected. This is not a weighty argument because even in the third millennium the grammatical elements of a name are not always taken up in the sentence. A further objection raised is that for the proposed etymology there should be two determinatives: ^damar.^dutu. This would be true if the orthography had been fixed no earlier than the latter part of the third millennium, but by Early Dynastic orthography ^(d)amar.utu would be normal—at Fara ur.utu seems always to lack the determinative—and, once fixed, scribal tradition would preserve it in that form. By this etymology the name is of a type such as humans bore, but that is actually an argument in its favour, because a surprisingly large number of minor Sumerian gods bear human names. However, there is more in favour of this etymology than the removal of objections. Only this etymology explains the pronunciation. As common in Sumerian with nouns of the structure amar, the first vowel can drop, so this leaves the sign UD for either -tuk or -ütuk, and utu is the only relevant value of UD. The final genitive (a)k would not have been written in Early Dynastic orthography. Now utu for the sign UD occurs only for the name of the sun god (*MSL* xiv, 310, 158, etc.), so there is really no way out of accepting this etymology. Of course it could be argued that it was folk-etymology in the Early Dynastic period, and that a hypothetical original meaning lay behind it. We are not interested in such speculations: the understanding of the name in historical times is all one can realistically begin with. The retention of the final -k might seem a problem, since in Sumerian generally it would drop at the end of a name of this type and elsewhere. However, Babylon was outside Sumer, and the name of the god of Susa, another town outside Sumer, namely Inšušinak, in its various writings (F. W. König, *Afo*, Beiheft 16, 193) does preserve the final -k. However, the two Old Babylonian phonetic renderings of the name Marduk (p. 7): *ma-ru-tu-uk* and *ma-ru-tu-UD* confirm that the final -k

⁷ J. A. Brinkman, *A political history of Post-Kassite Babylonia*, 22.

is amissible. The author could not understand the final UD and suggests that it may be an error, but these writings are from Nippur lexical texts, and in these the sign UD, as drawn to my attention by M. Civil many years ago, has the value u_4 , cf. a A = $mu-u_4$ (*MSL* xiv, 89 5 :1 and *passim* in this list). However, since the name is Sumerian this repeated vowel in $-tu-u_4$ should not indicate length, but must be construed like the Ur III plene writings commented upon by J. Klein, *Three Šulgi hymns* pp. 65 ff. and 131 ff., as markers of something lost by phonetic change. Thus the traditional writing of the name of Marduk combined with the phonetic writings of various periods and a full knowledge of the many factors involved lead to one very clear result.

The theological implications of the name Marduk in this light are more open to debate. It is not known whether the Sumerian gods bearing human names were rulers eventually deified, or minor gods to whom in prehistoric times human personal names were given because their relationship to the chief deity was conceived in the same way as the relationship of humans to the chief deity. If the latter were true, then one could assume that the god of Early Dynastic Babylon was given the name 'Bull-calf of Utu' because Babylon at that time was in the cultural orbit of the town Sippar, where Utu/Šamaš was the chief god.

The brief three-page section on the third millennium (pp. 19–21) is most dogmatic and least satisfactory. It deals mainly with a short, incomplete early inscription often considered to name Marduk, *YOS* 9, 2. This is not at all finely engraved on the stone. The author follows I. J. Gelb in assigning it to the Early Dynastic period, but does not go into any general consideration of the palaeography apart from using Fossey's *Manuel d'Assyriologie*, II. It is reasonably certain that the text is to be read as Akkadian, and comes from what was later called Akkad rather than from Sumer. However, comparable material is not so extensive or so well classified as to date and place of origin that one can rely on available knowledge to settle finally the problems of this important inscription. The author questions the reading 'PA.TE'. [si] in the first line, and denies the reading $^d\text{amar.utu}$ in line 7 because the precise forms of the signs TE and UTU as read cannot be so far documented from Early Dynastic Akkad. The present writer is unimpressed by this observation in view of the extreme shortage of monumental dedication inscriptions from this area and period, and he is prepared to accept both readings if good sense is achieved. As to the likelihood of Marduk's occurrence, it must be observed that Sumerian and Akkadian settlements are not attested as changing their patron gods: there was an extreme conservatism in this matter. Secondly, it is difficult, if not impossible, to find evidence of totally new foundations within the relevant spatial and temporal confines. Even Akkad appears to have existed before Sargon founded his new dynasty there. So since the existence of Babylon is known from the time of the Akkad dynasty and onwards there is every reason to suppose that it also existed in the Early Dynastic period, and with the same patron deity. So to deny that $^d\text{UD.AMAR}$ in the Šalābikh god list *OIP* 99, 89 ii 1 is Marduk when sign order is of no consequence is an exercise of courage that could be better employed. Similarly to deny ('kaum') that amar.UD in a Fara literary text can be Marduk, when the context is not understood, is premature. Until the context is understood the possibility remains. However, if the reading $^d\text{amar.utu}$ is accepted in *YOS* 9, 2, then BAR.KI.BAR in line 2 must be a writing of the place name Babylon. The author asks whether there could be a connexion with a place BAR^{ki} near Kish, but that would leave the second BAR as a superfluous sign in an otherwise clear context. The present writer would argue that the KI

is the determinative, out of place as a survival from the time when sign-order was neglected, and that the town name is to be read *bar.bar* or *ba₇.ba₇*. The value *ba₇* is a well-known Sumerian value, also attested at Ebla. From the Akkad dynasty and onwards the town name was *Bāb-ilim* 'Gate of the god', but it is generally acknowledged that this might well be folk-etymology. We propose that it was earlier *Bab(b)al* or *Bab(b)ar*. Confirmation is available in the Cassite-period writings of the name with an *a* in the second syllable: *Panbalu*, *Pambalu* and *Babalu* (*RG* 5, 47).⁸ This conflicts so obviously with the long-established etymology of the name that it can only be explained as a reflection of actual speech. The long survival in speech of pronunciations of names contrary to official orthography is a well known linguistic phenomenon. So an Early Dynastic writing *bar.bar^{ki}* or *ba₇.ba₇^{ki}* for Babylon is far from impossible.

The above comments are of course far from an exhaustive critique even of the points we have taken up, so in conclusion a few minor matters in need of correction are given to illustrate other aspects of the problems of writing the definitive monograph on Marduk:

P. 7: read ^aTUŠ.A with ^{gi}šá.má.tuš.a, v. 1. .tuš.ša (*MSL* v, 177, 306).

P. 7, n. 3: the Sumerian rendered ^abi-in-du₆-kù is of course ^adumu.du₆.kù. ^amār.du₆.kù is a spurious modern creation. In *Enūma Eliš* VI–VII *Dumuduku* is a long way from Marduk with its several etymologies.

P. 131, 10 = 12. The uncertain word ends in a clear *ib* in the Old Babylonian copy, as confirmed by the late *-bi*. The restoration *mīlu* is not a possibility.

P. 169: in view of the comparatively small amount of Old Babylonian literary and religious material about Marduk, conclusions should not be drawn from the lack so far of Old Babylonian attestation of a particular term like *apkal ilī*.

P. 176: the 66 lines dealing with Marduk in the appendix to An = Anum are epithets rather than names.

P. 177: there is no god *Eriya*, only *il-āli-ia*, cf. ^aug.uru = *il a-lu* (*CT* 51, 136 10).

P. 185: the curse-lists are handled simplistically. A traditional order could be so firmly fixed as to be unchangeable even when its implied ranking was no longer accepted. The epithets with the individual gods have to be taken with the sequence and both weighed together.

P. 185, n. 6: all three passages are to be read: *bēl pattāti*.

P. 190 f.: the author follows Goetze and thrice misreads GIM as DA. Read *šār gim-ri* twice and *i-na gim-ri ilī* once. At the end of line 5 *a-pi-šam* with the copy is entirely acceptable. The end of line 25 may be restored: [*ha-diš*] *l[ip-pa-lis]*.

⁸ The separation of *Pambalu* from *Bābili* in *RG* 5 is unwarranted. The view that they refer to the same place is attributed to K. Balkan, but it was also that of B. Landsberger (*JCS* 8 p. 67, n. 172). The justification of this view is clear from the briefest survey of the passages. *Pan/mbalu* is mentioned with Akkad in one Cassite letter (*PBS* 1/2, 16), and in a context with *Upi* in another Cassite letter (*BE* 17/1, 23). A late copy of a royal inscription of Gaddaš, possibly apocryphal, gives the king's titles as: 'king of the four quarters, king of Sumer and Akkad, king of *bā-bā-lam*' (see *JCS* loc. cit.). Another possibly apocryphal late copy of a Cassite text naming *Agum* and *Damiq-ili-šū* also has the phrase 'king of *bā-bā-lam*' (op. cit., loc. cit.). A late copy of a Kurigalzu inscription states: 'in *Pa-am-ba-li*, the throne dais of the Cassite king, the ancient city (*a-li ša-a-ti*)' (*RA* 29, 96 4). So if *Pam/nbalu* is distinguished from *Bābili*, one must maintain that in the vicinity of Babylon there was another town called *Pam/nbalu*, which was the capital town of some of the Cassite kings, and to which great antiquity was ascribed. Capital towns do not appear and disappear so easily.